

September 17, 2026

Dr. Enrique Schisterman
Editor-in-Chief
American Journal of Epidemiology

Dr. Jesse Knight
MAP Centre for Urban Health Solutions
Unity Health Toronto, University of Toronto

Re: Submission of a manuscript to *American Journal of Epidemiology*

Dear Dr. Schisterman,

We are pleased to submit our manuscript entitled *Estimating duration in sex work from cross-sectional studies: a Bayesian global synthesis suggests shorter durations* for consideration to publish as a *Practice of Epidemiology* article in *AJE*.

«TODO»

Sincerely,

Jesse Knight, PhD & Sharmistha Mishra, MD, PhD
on behalf of all authors

Title Estimating duration in sex work from cross-sectional studies:
a Bayesian global synthesis suggests shorter durations

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Date September 17, 2026

Journal American Journal of Epidemiology

Type Practice of Epidemiology

Funding This work was supported by: the Natural Sciences and Engineering Research Council of Canada (CGS-D) [JK]; the Canadian Institutes of Health Research (FN-13455) [SM].

Acknowledgements We thank: Oli Stevens, Rebecca Anderson (Imperial College London), Nancy Tahmo, Chidumebi Idemili (Unity Health Toronto) for helpful discussions regarding this work; as well as two anonymous reviewers for feedback on an early precursor to this work.

Ethics Approval Not applicable: we used only published aggregate data.

AI We used no so-called "artificial intelligence" tools in any part of this work.

Code All code and selected results are available at: github.com/mishra-lab/sw-duration

Competing Interests None declared.

Abstract Average total durations selling or buying sex are key determinants of HIV/STI transmission dynamics and service coverage. Such durations are usually estimated from cross-sectional surveys of people actively selling/buying sex. However, cross-sectional surveys tend to oversample individuals selling/buying sex for longer, while survey-reported durations will be right-censored. Prior works have not precisely addressed these two competing biases. In this paper, we derive the exact relationship between the distribution of durations reported in cross-sectional surveys and the distribution of total durations in the population overall. These distributions will be identical if total durations are exponentially distributed; otherwise, reported durations will typically underestimate the variance in total durations. We develop a parametric Bayesian model of this relationship, and apply it to re-analyze aggregate data from a global systematic review. Our model-estimated average total durations are significantly shorter than previously published for all regions — e.g. in Africa: 3.7 (95% CI: 3.4–3.9) versus 5.5 years; in Asia: 1.4 (1.2–1.5) versus 2.8–4.0 years. Shorter average durations then suggest that HIV incidence in sex work could be higher than previously thought, to match the same HIV prevalence data. Our approach can be applied beyond sex work, to characterize duration distributions for any transient risk/disease state.

Keywords censoring, length-time bias, HIV/AIDS, STI, sex work

Counts Abstract: 200 words, Body: 3600 words, References: 32, Figures: 4, Tables: 2

1 Introduction

In epidemiology, we are often interested in quantifying duration distributions, e.g. durations of transient health states or exposure to risk/protective factors. Such distributions can help characterize populations' cumulative exposure [1], and inform inputs to various kinds of simulation models [2].

In HIV epidemiology, sex work — selling or buying sex for money or equivalent — typically reflects a transient period of elevated risk for HIV acquisition and transmission due to intersecting structural, behavioural, and biological factors [3–7]. Unmet HIV prevention and treatment needs during this period have long been recognized as drivers of epidemic emergence and persistence, especially through insights from mathematical models of HIV transmission [8–10]. While entry into sex work is driven primarily by economic and social instability, exit is further mediated by aging, stable partnering, stigma, and violence [11–13].

Durations selling or buying sex are thus key determinants of HIV epidemiology, and key inputs to HIV transmission models, particularly those aiming to compare the impacts of different prioritized services. For example, 10% HIV prevalence among sex workers in a context with shorter typical durations / rapid turnover (e.g. 1 year) suggests a high HIV incidence rate, whereas 10% HIV prevalence in a context with longer typical durations / slower turnover (e.g. 10 years) suggests a relatively lower HIV incidence rate, since prevalence has more time to accumulate [14].¹ Turnover can also moderate levels of program / service coverage among sex workers (e.g. PrEP), where rapid turnover could result in a constant influx of new sex workers to reach, and potentially high loss-to-follow-up among those exiting sex work,² whereas slower turnover could make it easier to attain higher levels of coverage. Finally, duration in sex work can further influence onward transmission risk, where longer durations theoretically allow more onward transmission following acquisition (in the absence of treatment).

Ideally, context-specific estimates of sex work duration could be obtained from representative longitudinal cohorts with minimal loss-to-follow-up, or from representative samples of "retired" sex workers.³ Unfortunately, such studies are rare, and most estimates derive from cross-sectional surveys of those actively selling or buying sex [15]. In their global scoping review of HIV risk behaviour durations, Fazito et al. [15] considered three methods to estimate mean duration selling/buying sex: 1. mean total duration among those finished selling/buying sex; 2. reciprocal of the proportion who started selling/buying sex within the past year; and 3. double the mean/median reported duration among those actively selling/buying sex. Among the 118 estimates of duration selling or buying sex in [15]: the vast majority used method 3 (86%), a small fraction used method 2 (14%), and none used method 1. Yet, methods 2 and 3 have their own limitations (Table 1), especially overlooking so-called "length-biased sampling" [16], as we will discuss further below. Moreover, studies also commonly report the proportions of respondents selling/buying sex for pre-specified duration ranges, e.g. {0–2, 2–5, 5+} years, but it's not clear if/how such data could be used with methods 2 or 3. As one

¹ Assuming HIV prevalence among new sex workers is negligible.

² Questions remain regarding to what degree those exiting sex work remain engaged with programs.

³ Throughout: we often refer to "sex workers" for brevity, but our statements usually apply similarly to their clients who buy sex; we also intentionally use gender-agnostic terminology, since men, women, and transgender individuals can all sell and buy sex.

Table 1: Methods of estimating mean duration selling sex suggested and reviewed in [15]

	Definition	Potential challenges	N [†]
1.	mean total duration among those finished selling sex	• very difficult to sample this population	0
2.	reciprocal of the proportion who started selling sex within the past year among those actively selling sex	• this proportion is rarely reported • sensitive to delays in self-identification • not adjusted for sampling biases	16
3.	double the mean/median reported (right-censored) duration among those actively selling sex	• median < mean for skewed distributions • not adjusted for sampling biases	93

[†] Number of estimates of duration selling sex synthesized by [15]; corresponding numbers were: 0, 1, 8 for duration buying sex.

recent HIV modelling study noted when specifying plausible duration parameter bounds: “We multiply the lower bound by 0.5 and upper bound by 2 because of uncertainty in how overall duration of sex work relates to current duration of sex work” [17].

Objectives We sought to offer updated guidance on estimating duration in sex work from different kinds of commonly available data. Specifically, our objectives were to:

1. Describe the exact analytic relationship between the distribution of reported durations selling sex in cross-sectional studies, and the distribution of total durations selling sex in the population overall.
2. Develop and apply a Bayesian model of the above relationships to infer mean total durations selling sex in the population overall from commonly available aggregate data, and compare resulting estimates with previously published estimates, first for a single illustrative study [18], and second for pooled regional estimates from the above review [15].

While we focus on sex work as an illustrative example, our insights likely extend to other transient health/risk states relevant to compartmental modelling or epidemiological study. The remainder of our paper is structured as follows: In § 2, we clarify some key concepts and assumptions. In § 3, we derive the analytic relationship noted above. In § 4, we introduce and apply our Bayesian model, comparing mean total durations with previous estimates. In § 5, we conclude with discussion of implications and future work.

2 Preliminaries

Assumptions For simplicity, we first assume that periods of sex work can be precisely and instantaneously delineated. That is, we assume clear boundaries between formal sex work and transactional sex, and that surveys predominantly reach those actively engaged in sex work, despite some surveys including anyone who bought/sold sex anytime in the past year, etc. [3]. We further assume that survey participants can accurately report how long they have bought/sold sex — i.e. perfect recall, no social desirability bias. Finally, we assume that all populations are at equilibrium, e.g. rates of entering/exiting sex work are stable over time.

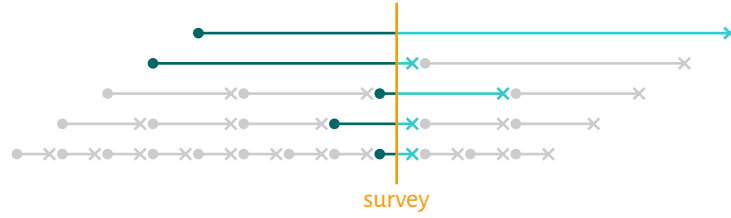


Figure 1: Diagram of periods selling/buying sex in an open population at equilibrium

Colours — dark green: past sex work among active population (observed); light green: future sex work among active population (unobserved); gray: past/future total sex work periods among inactive population (unobserved).

Who exactly are we talking about? Before continuing, it is helpful to distinguish two populations: individuals who will ever sell/buy sex in their lifetime, and individuals who are actively selling/buying sex. The former "source population" is the sampling frame for method 1, and tends to include more individuals who sell/buy sex for shorter durations; the latter "active population" is the sampling frame for methods 2 and 3, and tends to include more individuals who sell/buy sex for longer durations (Figure 1). Since "sex work" strata in compartmental models reflect the active population, we might assume that rates of exit from sex work should be derived from the active population. However, this is not the case, because these exit rates apply to all individuals *entering* sex work, which reflects the source population.⁴ A final population worth distinguishing is the "sampled population" in a given cross-sectional survey, which we assume intends to be representative of the active population, but might undersample some individuals, e.g. those in the early years of sex work, due to delays in self-identification as a sex worker [19, 20].

3 Analytic relationships

We now turn to deriving the exact relationship between: the distribution of *total* durations selling sex among the source population: $x \sim p(x)$, and the distribution of *observed* durations selling sex among participants in a cross-sectional survey: $z \sim p(z|s)$, given survey participation status s . We also consider two survey sampling cases: an ideal case which is representative of the active population, and a more plausible case which undersamples individuals in the early years of sex work. For reference throughout this section, Figure 2 illustrates example distributions for $p(x)$, $p(z|s)$, and intermediates thereof.

Length-biased sampling The probability of an individual being active at any given time is proportional to their total duration x ; a phenomenon well-described (e.g. in cancer epidemiology) as "length-biased sampling" [16]. Thus, the distribution of total durations among the active population is [21]:

$$p(x|a) = \frac{1}{K} x p(x) \quad (1)$$

⁴ An analogous example: the mean duration of an infection should be characterized by a cohort of individuals with *incident* infections, not a cross-section of individuals with *prevalent* infections.

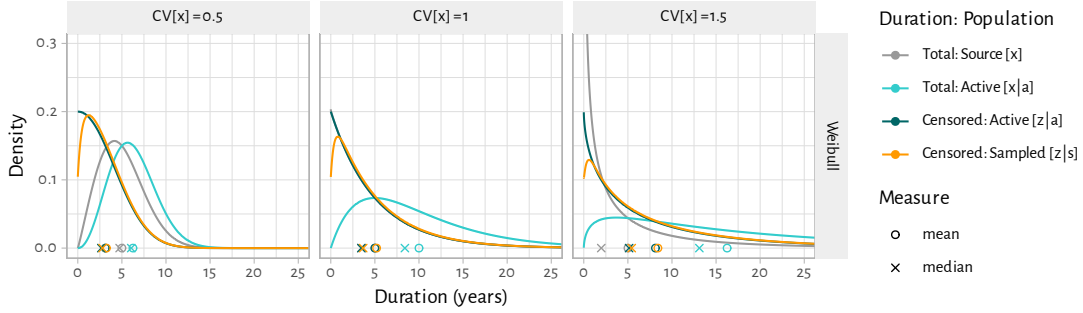


Figure 2: Illustrative distributions of total and censored durations among the source, active, and sampled populations for 3 coefficients of variation $CV[x]$ (rows)

Assumed: $E[x] = 5$ and $x \sim \text{Weibull}$ (Figure A.5 illustrates other distribution families); probability of being sampled per Eq. (7).

where K is a normalizing constant. These total durations among the active population are typically unobserved, except in cohort studies which follow participants until they exit sex work. From Eq. (1) we can see that the mean total duration among the active population $E[x|a]$ is always larger than the mean among the source population $E[x]$ (Figure A.5, light green vs gray circles); specifically, we have that [21]:

$$E[x|a] = E[x] (1 + CV^2[x]) \quad (2)$$

This is because greater variability in durations among the source population, as measured by the coefficient of variation: $CV[x]$, allows those with longer durations to increasingly dominate the active population. We also note that the probability of observing active individuals with very short total durations is inherently very small (Figure 2, light green).

Censoring If survey timing is effectively random, then observed durations at the time of survey (z) will be right-censored and uniformly distributed between 0 and the total duration (x):

$$p(z|x) = \text{Unif}(0, x) = \begin{cases} \frac{1}{x} & \text{if } 0 \leq z \leq x \\ 0 & \text{else} \end{cases} \quad (3)$$

Since the mean of $\text{Unif}(0, x)$ is $\frac{x}{2}$, the mean censored duration is always half the mean total duration among the active population: $E[z|a] = \frac{1}{2} E[x|a]$ (Figure 2, dark green vs light green circles). This idea appears to be well-known, and likely motivates doubling the mean $E[z|a]$ to estimate $E[x]$ in method 3 of [15] — i.e. to "undo" halving the mean. However, method 3 does not account for selection of the active population noted above, and thus actually estimates the mean total duration among the active population $E[x|a]$, which we know to be greater than among the source population $E[x]$ per Eq. (2).⁵

⁵ Fazito et al. [15] partially acknowledge this issue by opting to use the median over the mean of $z|a$ where possible, since the median is less sensitive to outliers. However, as shown in Figures A.5 and A.6, doubling the median $M[z|a]$ still overestimates $E[x]$, just to a lesser degree than doubling the mean $E[z|a]$, since the median will always be less than the mean for right-skewed distributions.

If total durations among the source population are exponentially distributed: $p(x) \sim \text{Exp}(\lambda)$, then $\text{CV}[x] = 1$, and so the mean *censored* duration among the *active* population will directly equal the mean *total* duration among the *source* population (without doubling): $\mathbb{E}[z|a] = \mathbb{E}[x]$. In other words, under these conditions, the mean reported duration in a typical cross-sectional survey will be an unbiased estimator of the target $\mathbb{E}[x]$. Moreover, even the *distributions* will be identical: $p(z|a) = p(x) = \text{Exp}(\lambda)$, as we will show below. This is particularly notable since compartmental models usually assume exponentially distributed durations.

Complete distribution By combining Eqs. (1) and (3), we can derive the complete distribution of censored durations among the active population $p(z|a)$ from the distribution of total durations among the source population $p(x)$ [22]:

$$\begin{aligned} p(z|a) &= \int_0^\infty p(z|x) p(x|a) dx \\ &= \int_z^\infty \frac{1}{x} p(x|a) dx \\ &= \frac{1}{K} \int_z^\infty \frac{x}{x} p(x) dx \\ &= \frac{1}{K} (1 - F_x(z)) \end{aligned} \tag{4}$$

As it turns out, this is simply one minus the cumulative distribution of total durations F_x , normalized to have unit area under the curve (via K).⁶ For the exponential case, we have: $F_x = 1 - e^{-\lambda x}$, $K = \lambda^{-1}$, and thus $p(z|a) = \lambda e^{-\lambda z} = p(x)$.

More generally, $\text{CV}[z|a]$ is typically drawn towards 1 relative to $\text{CV}[x]$, attenuating skewness when $\text{CV}[x] > 1$, and amplifying skewness when $\text{CV}[x] < 1$ (Figures 2 and A.5). However, we believe that $\text{CV}[x] > 1$ is more likely than $\text{CV}[x] < 1$ for two reasons. First, heavy-tailed distributions having $\text{CV}[x] > 1$ arise naturally via selection effects in populations with heterogeneous rates [23]. Second, most parametric distributions with $\text{CV}[x] < 1$ have $p(x \rightarrow 0) \rightarrow 0$ (Figure A.5), which effectively implies that few people exit sex work shortly after starting, or that most people stay in sex work for a "minimum" period, which seems unrealistic. If $\text{CV}[x] > 1$ is indeed more likely, then the skewness of the observable duration distribution $p(z|a)$ will generally underestimate the skewness of the true duration distribution $p(x)$.

Further sampling bias If the survey further undersamples individuals in the early years of sex work — i.e. beyond effects of length-based sampling, due to delays in self-identification as a sex worker — this probability of being sampled will be a function of current duration (z) not total duration (x), so we denote it $p(s|z)$. Many parameterizations are possible; e.g. Eq. (7). The distribution of observed durations among survey participants is then updated from Eq. (4) simply as:

$$p(z|s) = \frac{1}{K} p(s|z) (1 - F_x(z)) \tag{5}$$

Estimating mean total durations $\mathbb{E}[x]$ We conclude this section by revisiting the three methods considered

⁶ The integral lower bound changes from 0 to z because $p(z|x) = \frac{1}{x}$ only when $x < z$ and $p(z|x) = 0$ otherwise, per Eq. (3).

by Fazito et al. [15] to estimate the “true” mean duration in sex work $\mathbb{E}[x]$. Figure A.6 plots: the typically unobserved mean and median of total durations (method 1), *double* the means and medians of censored durations (method 3), and the reciprocal proportion of censored durations less than 1 year (method 2), across a range of $\text{CV}[x]$ and distribution families. We see that at low $\text{CV}[x]$, nearly all methods converge on $\mathbb{E}[x]$. However, as $\text{CV}[x]$ increases, selection towards longer total durations among the active or sampled populations raises the means of the corresponding censored durations $\mathbb{E}[z|\cdot]$, according to Eq. (2). Median censored durations exhibit a similar trend, but lag below means (true for all right-skewed distributions) to a degree which depends on the family, making such medians less useful estimators of $\mathbb{E}[x]$. For all method 3 estimates, undersampling of early sex work (here assuming $\rho_s = 0.5$, $\tau_{95} = 1$ year) predictably biases estimates slightly higher; this bias is also larger for smaller $\mathbb{E}[x]$ (not shown). Finally, turnover-based estimates (method 2) tends to be most consistent, only slightly overestimating $\mathbb{E}[x]$ as $\text{CV}[x]$ increases; however, this method is especially sensitive to undersampling of early sex work, which biases estimates upwards.

Nevertheless, the best simple estimate of $\mathbb{E}[x]$ is likely $\mathbb{E}[z|s]$, assuming $\text{CV}[x] \approx 1$, or more generally:

$$\hat{\mathbb{E}}[x] = \frac{1}{2} \mathbb{E}[z|s] (1 + \text{CV}^2[x]) \quad (6)$$

4 Application

We demonstrate the utility of the above analytic relationships through a Bayesian model, which aims to infer the complete distribution of total durations among the source population $p(x)$ from individual-level and/or aggregate data on the distribution of censored durations among the sampled population $p(z|s)$. Specifically, we focus on the types of aggregate estimates reviewed by Fazito et al. [15]: distribution means $\hat{\mathbb{E}}[z|s]$, and proportions of durations within a given interval $[a, b]$, denoted $\hat{\mathbb{P}}[a < z < b|s]$, which can encompass proportions of responses falling within pre-specified ranges, as well as estimated medians, quartiles, etc.

4.1 Bayesian Model

The model assumes a parametric distribution for total durations among the source population $p(x)$. Specifically, we considered 6 distribution families: Exponential, Gamma, Weibull, Log-Normal, Scaled Beta, and Scaled Kumaraswamy, all truncated or scaled to 50 years maximum duration (Table A.1). For convenience, we denote the parameters of all families as: α, β (for Exponential: β only), so the interpretation of and priors for each parameter depend on the family.

We model the probability of being sampled for survey participation among the active population as increasing exponentially from $\rho_s \in [0.5, 1]$ initially to 95% by year $\tau_{95} \in [0, 3]$, and 100% asymptotically:⁷

⁷ Thus, if either $\rho_s = 1$ or $\tau_{95} = 0$, then sampling will be modelled as perfectly representative of the active population: $p(s|z) = 1$.

$$p(s|z) = 1 + (\rho_s - 1)e^{\left(\frac{z}{\tau_{95}} \log\left(\frac{0.05}{1-\rho_s}\right)\right)} \quad (7)$$

We then define the distribution of censored durations among the sampled population $p(z|s; \alpha, \beta, \rho_s, \tau_{95})$ via Eq. (5). What remains is to specify likelihood functions for estimates $\hat{\mathbb{E}}[z|s]$ and $\hat{\mathbb{P}}[a < z < b|s]$ from empirical data, which are defined in Eqs. (A.1) and (A.2), respectively. Similar functions could be specified for individual-level data.

Under this model, we infer posterior distributions for $\alpha, \beta, \rho_s, \tau_{95}$ given the data. From α, β , we can then compute the distribution of total durations among the source population $p(x; \alpha, \beta)$, and any characteristics thereof, e.g. the mean $\mathbb{E}[x; \alpha, \beta]$. We implemented and fit the model using Stan [24], retaining 1000 samples after 500 warm-up iterations from 7 chains with default random initialization and sampling algorithm [25]. We confirmed convergence visually through parameter trace plots (not shown).

4.2 Aggregate data from a single survey

We first apply the model to aggregate data from a single survey: a 2011 cross-sectional survey of 328 female sex workers in Eswatini [18]. The authors reported crude and respondent-driven sampling (RDS)-adjusted mean (95% CI) proportions of respondents who had been selling sex for 0–3, 3–6, 6–11, and 11+ years (Table 2). We converted these 95% CI to effective sample sizes per stratum (N_i), for compatibility with Eq. (A.2). From these data alone (without further assumptions), we can only conclude that the median censored duration among active sex workers $\mathbb{M}[z|s]$ was between 3 and 6.

Figure 3 illustrates (i) the posterior distributions of modelled proportions versus the RDS-adjusted data, and (ii) the corresponding estimated distribution $p(z|s)$ for the best-fitting family (Gamma). Figure A.7 further illustrates the posterior distributions of model parameters and summary statistics for $p(x)$ and $p(z|s)$ across all families considered. We find that the model can reproduce these proportion data well. However, considerable uncertainty remains regarding the proportions of respondents selling sex for less than 1 year because the

Table 2: RDS-adjusted proportions of durations selling sex reported by a 2011 sample of female sex workers in Eswatini ($N = 313$) [18]

Duration [†] (years)	Proportion (%)			N_i Eff. [‡]
	Crude	RDS	(95% CI)	
0–3	28.8	38.3	(27.5, 49.1)	77
3–6	31.3	32.1	(23.6, 40.7)	113
6–11	26.2	20.2	(13.2, 27.1)	129
11+	13.7	9.4	(4.4, 14.4)	135

[†] Durations were calculated as the difference between current age and age first reported selling sex; duration strata in [18] were denoted: "under 2, 3–5, 6–10, 11 or more", which we corrected here to avoid implied gaps between strata. [‡] Effective sample size per strata calculated to match RDS-adjusted 95% CI.

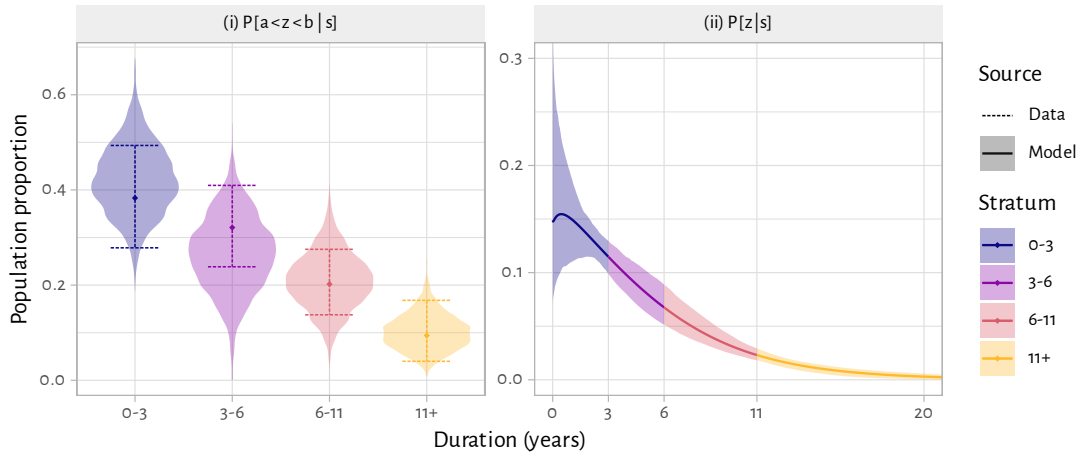


Figure 3: Posterior estimates from fitting the Bayesian model to RDS-adjusted aggregate censored duration data from [18]: (i) proportions of respondents with durations in pre-specified ranges; (ii) inferred duration density distribution $p(z|s)$

Shaded regions denote: (i) posterior of modelled proportions; (ii) posterior 95% CI of modelled duration distribution. Points and dashed line ranges denote reported 95% CI for proportion data.

available data aggregate the first 0–3 years into one stratum. This aggregation also limits our ability to infer parameters of the sampling model: ρ_s , τ_{95} , whose posterior distributions are effectively indistinguishable from their priors (Figure A.7).

The posterior distribution of $\mathbb{E}[z|s]$ was reasonably precise and consistent across the families considered (Figure A.7): approximately 5.0 (95% CI: 4.4, 5.8), and likewise for $\text{CV}[z|s]$: 0.9 (0.7, 1.2). By contrast, estimates of $\mathbb{E}[x]$ and $\text{CV}[x]$ were more varied, with 95% CI extremes spanning (2.0, 8.8) and (0.4, 1.9), respectively, and best-fitting $\mathbb{E}[x] = 5.7$, $\text{CV}[x] = 0.9$ under the Gamma family. Since the best-fitting distribution was approximately Exponential, the distributions of total durations among the source population and censored durations among the sampled population were approximately equal. Thus, we estimated that: 34.6% of all female sex workers in Eswatini sell sex for 0–3 years, 25.5% for 3–6 years, 25.6% for 6–11 years, and 12.9% for 11+ years. (cf. Table 2).

4.3 Aggregate data from a global review

Next, we applied our model to produce regionally pooled estimates of mean total duration selling sex using the same aggregate data and region definitions as Fazito et al. [15], and compared our pooled estimates to theirs.⁸ We manually extracted aggregate data for female sex workers from Table S2 in [15] on duration means $\mathbb{E}[z|s]$ and interval proportions $\mathbb{P}[a < z < b|s]$, including survey region, sample size, and other meta-data; see § A.3.2 for additional details. We then fit our model separately for each region with data, and for

⁸ We acknowledge that region definitions in [15] are now outdated, e.g. combining all of Africa.

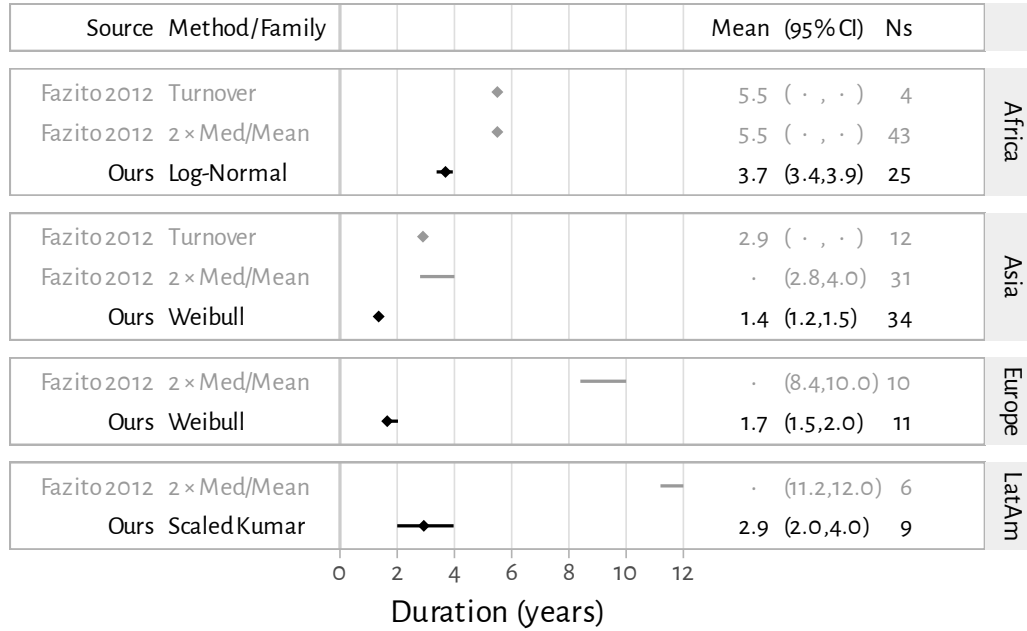


Figure 4: Forest plot of estimated mean total duration among female sex workers $E[x]$ versus regional synthesis estimates in [15]

Synthesis methodology in [15] was unclear, and regional estimates were variably reported as points or ranges; see Table 1 for method definitions. Ns: number of unique surveys contributing to the estimate.

each distribution family, retaining the best-fitting family per region. Figures A.8–A.11 illustrate the posterior distributions of model parameters, summary statistics, cumulative/density duration distributions, and means versus the data.

Figure 4 then illustrates our estimates of mean total duration $E[x]$ versus those in Table 1 of [15]. Our estimates are consistently shorter than those of [15] for all regions — e.g. we estimated: 3.7 (3.4–3.9) versus 5.5 years for Africa (approximately 1.5x shorter), and 2.9 (2.0–4.0) versus 11.2–12.0 years for Latin America (approximately 4x shorter). Such results were broadly consistent across other distribution families (Figure A.12), with $E[x]$ typically longest under Exponential and Log-Normal families and shortest under the Scaled Kumaraswamy family. Gamma, Weibull, Scaled Beta, and Scaled Kumaraswamy families also often suggested that a large proportion of women in the source population sold sex for under 1 year.

5 Discussion

We sought to clarify several concepts relevant to characterizing the distribution of durations selling or buying sex. First, we distinguished between "source" and "active" populations, with the active population being a length-biased sample of the source population. Second, we reiterated the familiar implications of randomly censored durations, which halves the mean duration. We combined the above to derive the exact relationship between the distribution of censored durations among the active population and the distribution of total durations among the source population, which happen to be exactly equal if duration are Exponentially distributed. We then developed a parametric Bayesian model of this relationship to infer the distribution of total durations among the source population from aggregate data on censored durations among the active population. Applying this model to data from a previous global systematic review, we inferred significantly shorter mean durations across multiple regions.

Our estimates of mean duration selling sex were around half or less versus those reported in [15]. This was expected, as we showed how both methods 2 and 3 can overestimate mean duration, especially if surveys undersample individuals in the early years of sex work. Shorter durations suggest that HIV incidence in sex work could be higher than previously estimated via transmission models, since there is less time for infections to accumulate to match observed HIV prevalence in sex work [14]. However, existing model-based estimates of HIV incidence among female sex workers in Sub-Saharan Africa already exceed empirical estimates [26]; this might be partly explained by recruitment of relatively lower-risk female sex workers and relatively higher-risk wider population women for empirical HIV incidence studies [27]. Rapid sex work turnover could also suggest that more infections in the wider population might be attributable to unmet prevention needs during brief periods of sex work [14].

We also inferred that distributions of total durations in sex work are likely "heavy-tailed", such that rates of exit decline with duration in sex work. This declining exit rate could reflect selection effects acting on between-person differences in propensity to remain in sex work, i.e. "frailties" [23], and/or within-person changes while in sex work, including self-identification as a sex worker, and changing social ties with family, friends, and clients [11–13, 28, 29]. While individual-based simulation models could specify "heavy-tailed" distributions directly, compartmental simulation models would need two or more sex work states to reproduce this pattern — e.g. separate short and long duration sex work trajectories, and/or separate early and late sex work periods. Indeed, such states would also be useful to capture unique risks associated with early sex work [28, 29].

Limitations Our work has several limitations. First, we did not model any gaps (temporary breaks) in sex work. However, many estimates of sex work duration are derived from the difference between respondents' current age and the age they report first selling sex, which implicitly ignores such gaps. Respondents may also report "duration selling sex" in this way when asked directly, especially since unsuccessful attempts to exit sex work can be stigmatized [13]. Second, we did not consider any recall/reporting biases, as entry into sex work is likely a memorable life-course event [11–13, 30, 31], and self-identified sex workers do not, to our knowledge, have obvious motivations for under-reporting durations. We additionally assumed that sex work

turnover is stable over time, despite empirical evidence of changing sex work dynamics in several contexts [32, 33]. Finally, our re-analysis of duration data from [15] did not include more recent or individual-level data, since our motivation was mainly to compare results using our proposed versus prior estimation methods. Additionally, in forthcoming work we will synthesize individual-level data from 183 studies [33].

Future work Our Bayesian model could be extended in several ways. First, it might be more useful to model sex work durations via semi/parametric hazard rates of exiting sex work, rather than parametric duration distributions.⁹ A hazard rate approach could allow and incorporation of more intuitive parameter priors (e.g. 0.5–50% exit rate per month), covariates (e.g. under proportional hazards assumptions) [34], and frailties (e.g. to capture unmodelled heterogeneity) [23]. Relatedly, joint modelling of duration and age and/or calendar time could help characterize relevant trends noted above e.g. for HIV/STI transmission modelling [32, 33]. Such extensions might be supported by related work estimating durations (also called sojourn times) in chronic disease states for modelling and analysis of screening programs [21].

Conclusion «TODO»

⁹ Indeed, the hazard rates implied by some parametric distributions we considered may be implausible, e.g. Log-Normal.

References

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Appendix

Title Estimating duration in sex work from cross-sectional studies:
a Bayesian global synthesis suggests shorter durations

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Date September 17, 2026

Appendix A

Supplementary Content

A.1 Parametric equations

Distribution families We considered 6 distribution families for $p(x)$ in our analysis (Table A.1).

Table A.1: Distribution families considered, using common parameter notation (α, β)

Family	Definition $p(x)$	α log-prior [*]	β log-prior [*]
Exponential [†]	$\frac{1}{\alpha} e^{-\frac{x}{\alpha}}$	–	[–1, 3]
Gamma [†]	$\frac{\beta^\alpha}{\Gamma(\alpha)} x^{\alpha-1} e^{-\beta x}$	[–2, 2]	[–3, 3]
Weibull [†]	$\frac{\alpha}{\beta} \left(\frac{x}{\beta}\right)^{\alpha-1} e^{-(x/\beta)^\alpha}$	[–1, 2]	[–1, 2]
Log-Normal [†]	$\frac{1}{x \beta \sqrt{2\pi}} e^{-\frac{1}{2} \left(\frac{\log x - \alpha}{\beta}\right)^2}$	[–9, 1]	[–2, 3]
Scaled Beta [‡]	$\frac{x^{\alpha-1} (1 - x^\alpha)^{\beta-1}}{B(\alpha, \beta)}$	[–3, 3]	[0, 3]
Scaled Kumaraswamy [‡]	$\alpha \beta x^{\alpha-1} (1 - x^\alpha)^{\beta-1}$	[–3, 3]	[0, 3]

^{*} Priors for α, β in the applied model were defined as uniform on the log-scale; e.g. [–1, 3] corresponds to $[e^{-1}, e^3] \approx [0.37, 20]$.

[†] Distributions spanning $[0, \infty)$ were truncated to $[0, 50]$ years. [‡] Distributions spanning $[0, 1]$ were scaled to span $[0, 50]$ years.

Likelihoods functions Under the model for $p(z|s)$, we define the likelihoods for empirical estimates of the mean $\hat{\mathbb{E}}_i[z|s]$ and proportions $\hat{\mathbb{P}}_i[a < z < b|s]$ from a given survey with sample size N_i as, respectively: the Gamma-equivalent of Normal sampling error for the mean (since $\hat{\mathbb{E}} > 0$), and the Beta-approximation of the Binomial distribution (for differentiability):

$$\hat{\mathbb{E}}_i[z|s; N_i] \sim \text{Gamma}(\alpha = N_i / \mathbb{CV}_i^2[z|s], \beta = N_i / \mathbb{CV}_i^2[z|s] / \mathbb{E}[z|s]) \quad (\text{A.1})$$

$$\hat{\mathbb{P}}_i[a < z < b|s; N_i] \sim \text{Beta}(\alpha = N_i \mathbb{P}_i[a < z < b|s], \beta = N_i (1 - \mathbb{P}_i[a < z < b|s])) \quad (\text{A.2})$$

To validate these likelihood functions, we simulated 10,000 stochastic samples of z with sample sizes $N_i = \{30, 100, 300, 1000\}$ given known $p(z|s)$ under $\mathbb{E}[x] = 5$, $\mathbb{CV}[x] = \{0.5, 1, 1.5\}$, and all 6 distribution families. We then compared the distribution of stochastic estimates of $\hat{\mathbb{E}}[z|s; N_i]$ and $\hat{\mathbb{P}}[a < z < b|s; N_i]$ from each sample with the analytic likelihood functions: Eqs. (A.1) and (A.2). For proportions, we considered $\mathbb{P}[0 < z < 1]$, $\mathbb{P}[1 < z < 5]$, and $\mathbb{P}[5 < z < 9]$, arbitrarily.

Figures A.1–A.4 illustrate these comparisons, where we observe good agreement between the stochastic and analytic distributions across all conditions. Note that stochastic distributions for $\hat{\mathbb{P}}[a < z < b|s; N_i]$ are discrete (more visible at low N_i) because there are a finite number simulated respondents whose durations can fall in the specified interval $[a, b]$.

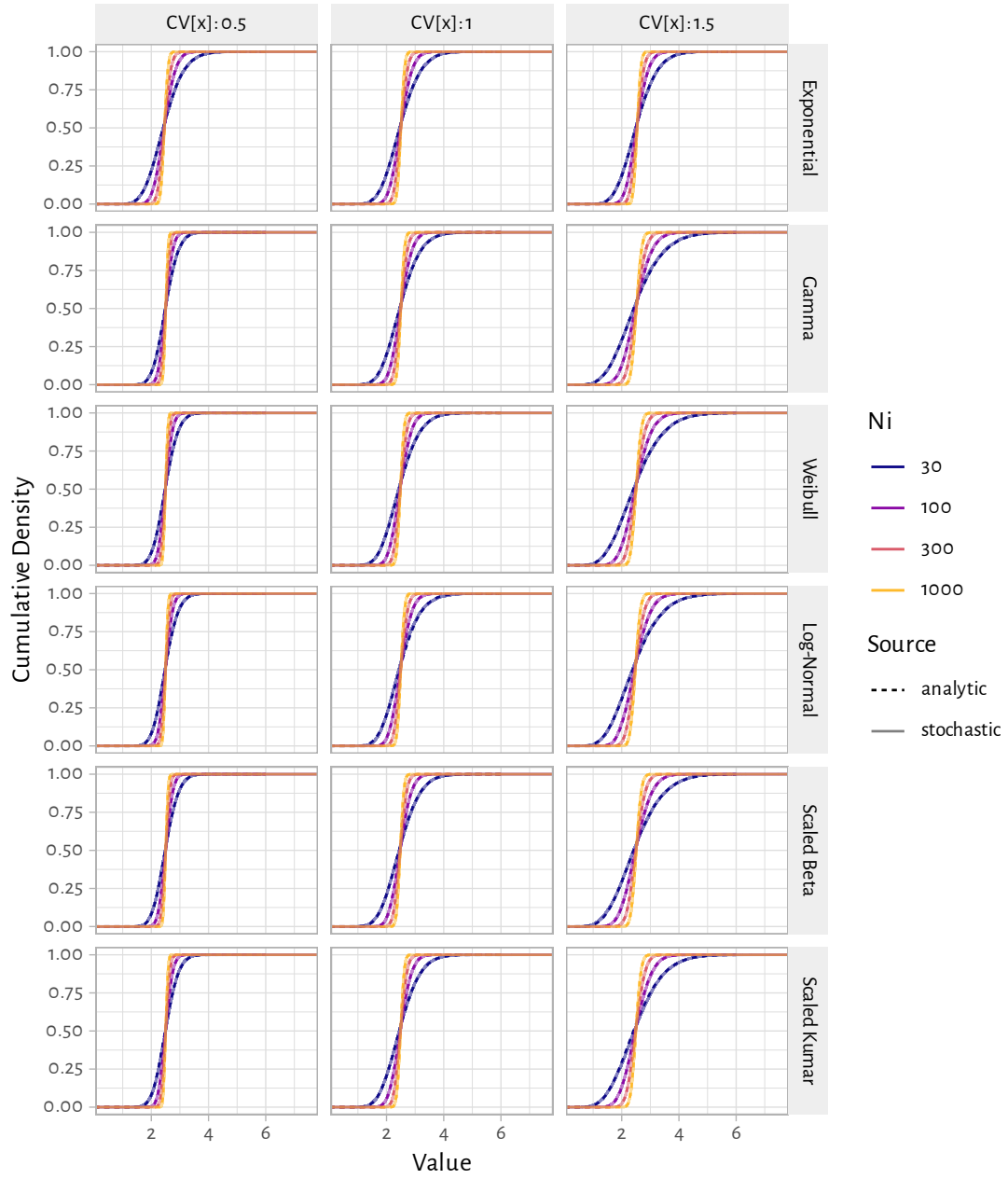


Figure A.1: Comparison of analytic likelihood functions and distribution of 10,000 stochastic estimates of $\mathbb{E}[\mathbf{z}|\mathbf{s}]$, for different simulated survey sizes N_i and latent distribution families for $p(x)$

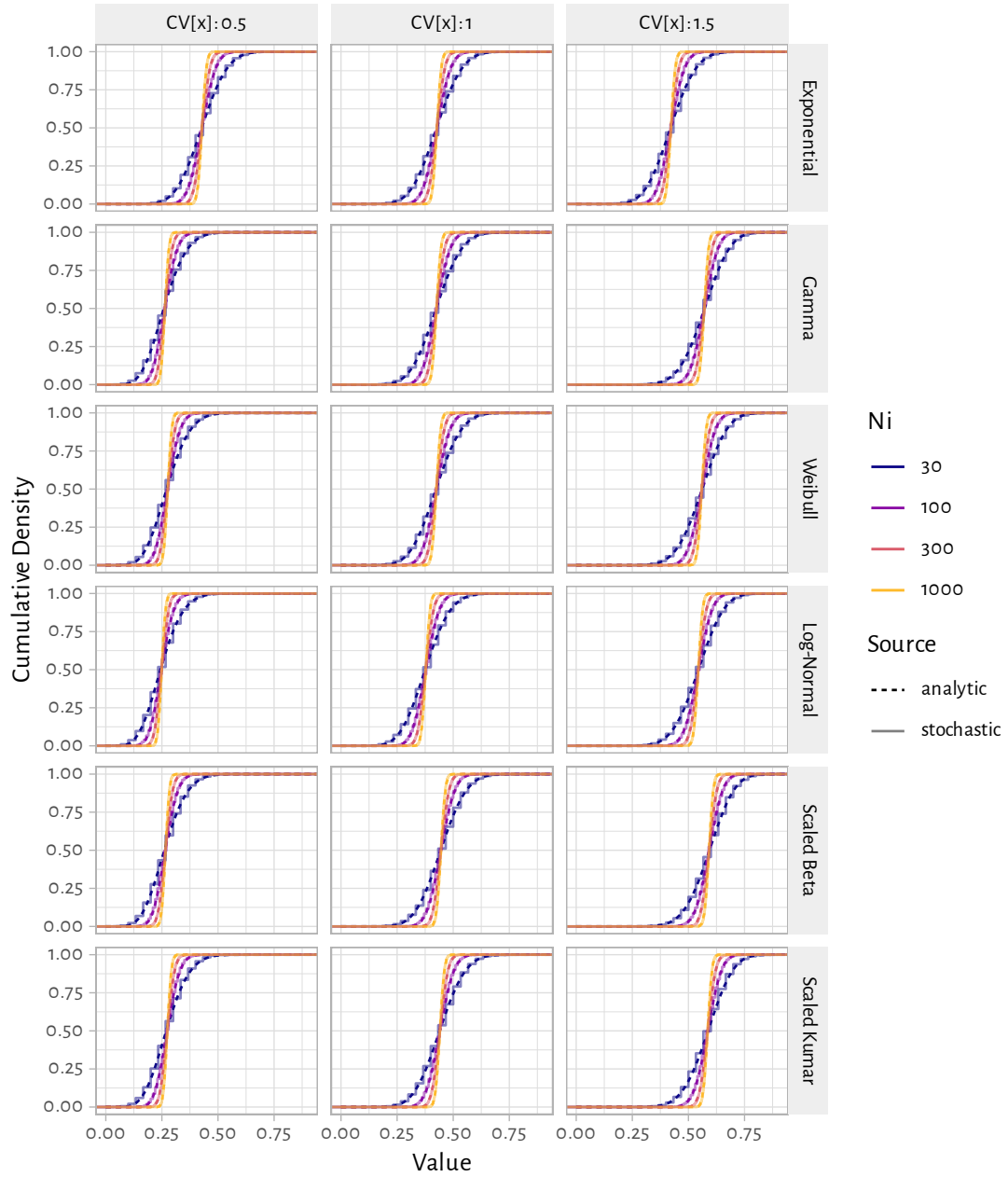


Figure A.2: Comparison of analytic likelihood functions and distribution of 10,000 stochastic estimates of $\mathbb{P}[\mathbf{0} < \mathbf{z} < \mathbf{1} | \mathbf{s}]$, for different simulated survey sizes N_i and latent distribution families for $p(x)$

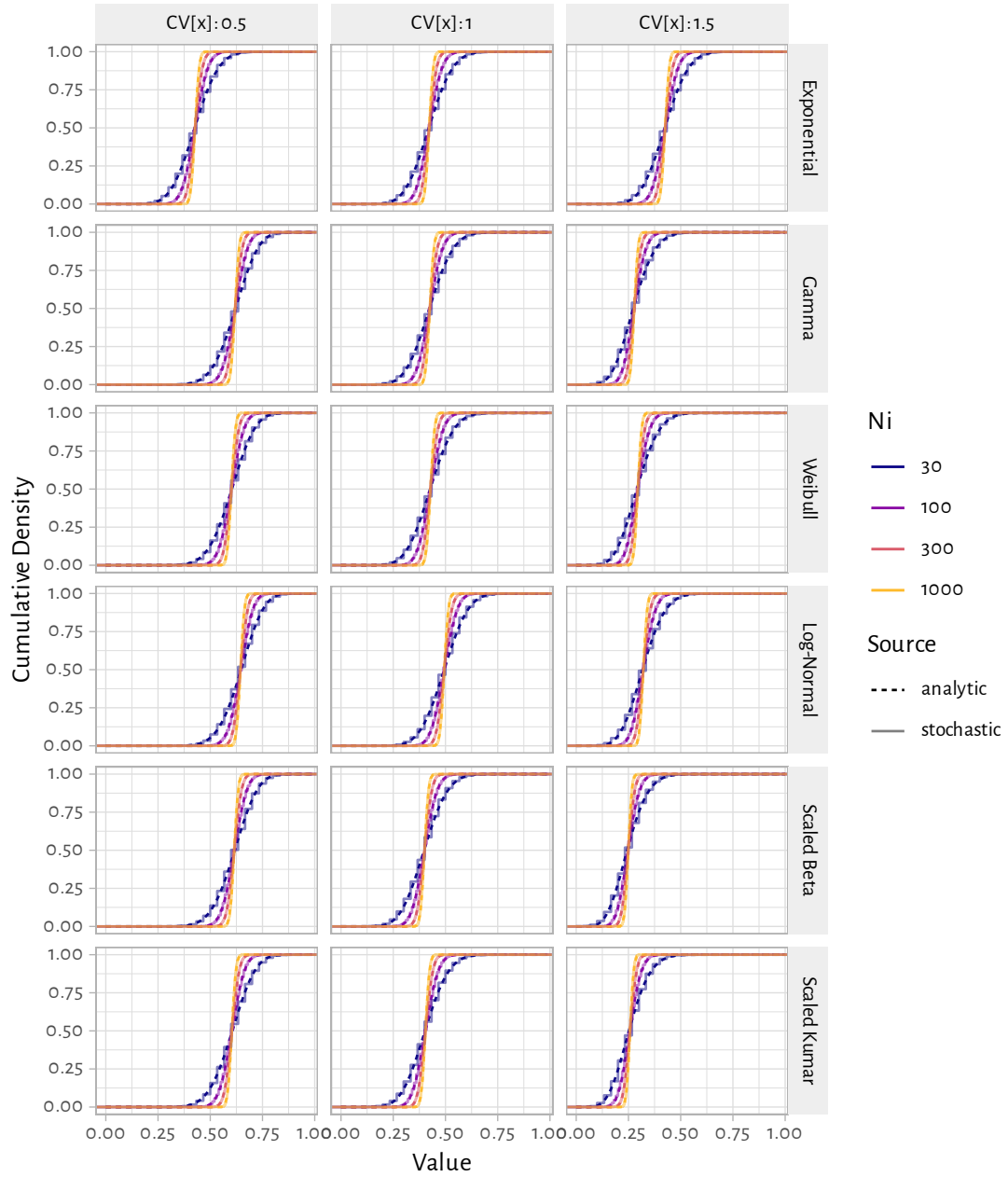


Figure A.3: Comparison of analytic likelihood functions and distribution of 10,000 stochastic estimates of $\mathbb{P}[1 < z < 5|s]$, for different simulated survey sizes N_i and latent distribution families for $p(x)$

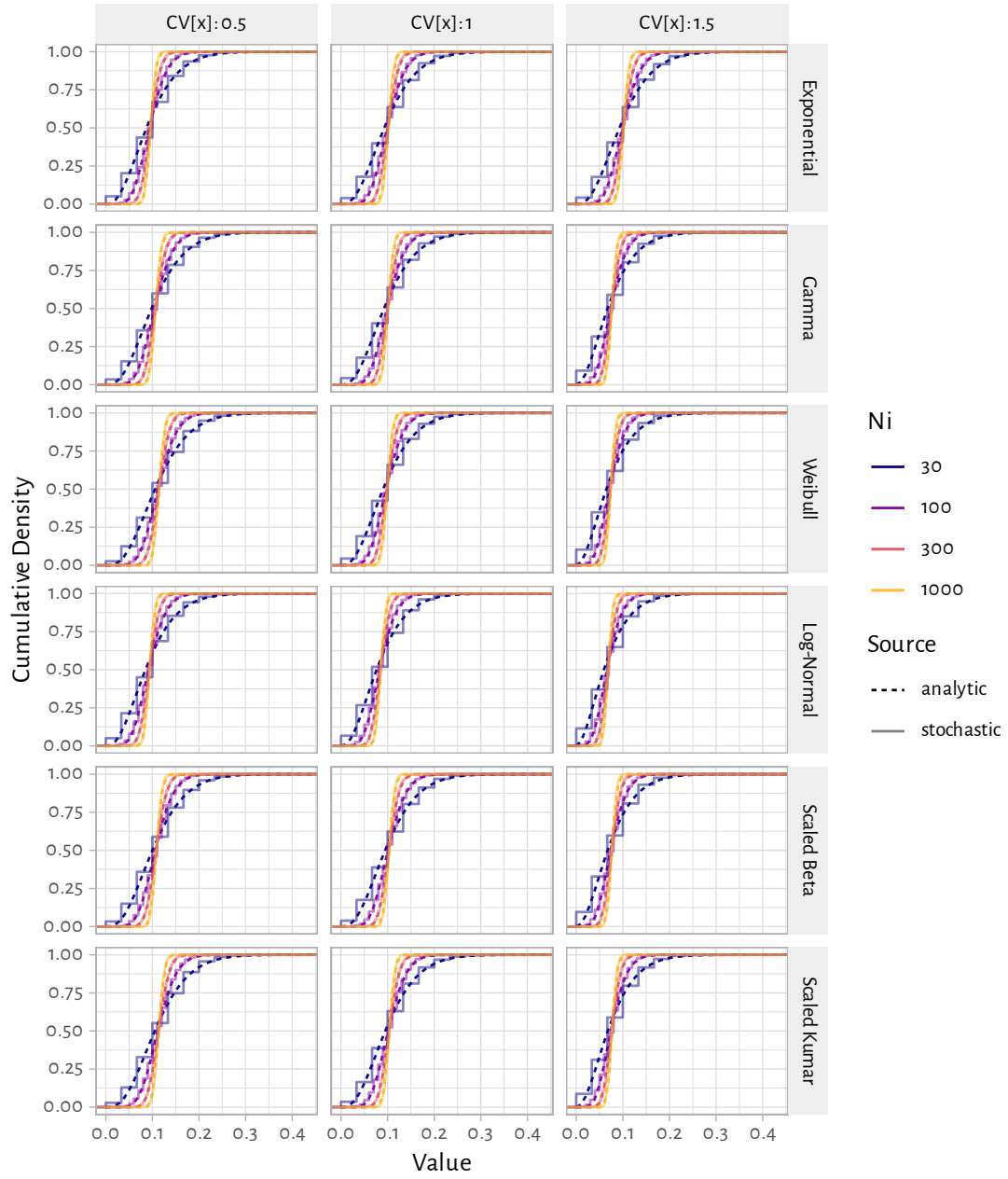


Figure A.4: Comparison of analytic likelihood functions and distribution of 10,000 stochastic estimates of $\mathbb{P}[5 < \mathbf{z} < 9|\mathbf{s}]$, for different simulated survey sizes N_i and latent distribution families for $p(\mathbf{x})$

A.2 Illustrative analytic results

Figure A.5 repeats Figure 2 for 5 distribution families considered (Table A.1) — i.e. showing distributions of total (x) and censored (z) durations among the source, active, and sampled populations for each family, all having $\mathbb{E}[x] = 5$ and $\text{CV}[x] = \{0.5, 1, 1.5\}$. We omit the Exponential family as it is a special case of both Gamma and Weibull with $\text{CV}[x] = 1$. Figure A.6 further illustrates performance of different $\mathbb{E}[x]$ estimators considered in [1] across a range of $\text{CV}[x]$ and the same 5 distribution families.

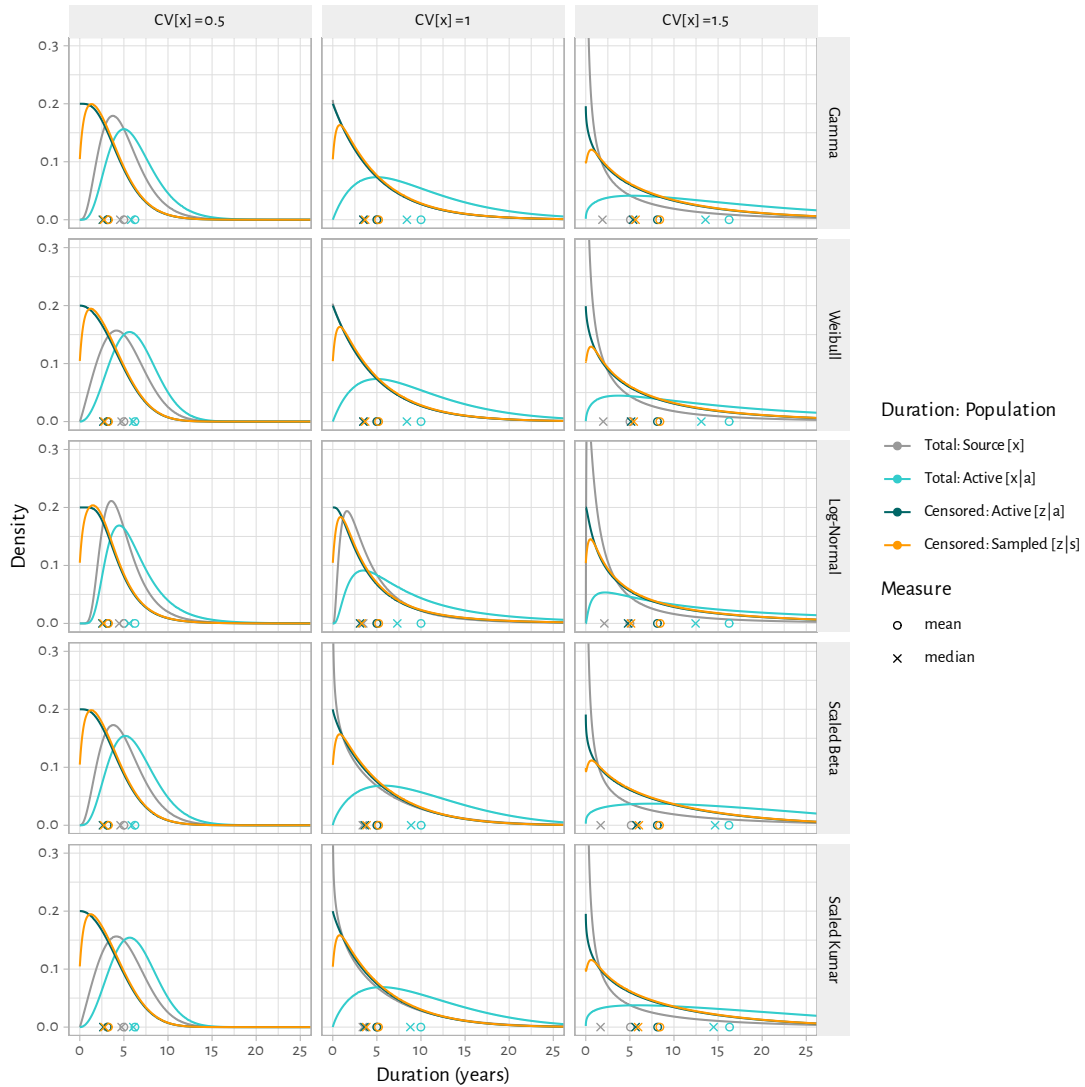


Figure A.5: Illustrative distributions of total and censored durations among the source, active, and sampled populations for different x distribution families (columns) and 3 coefficients of variation $\text{CV}[x]$ (rows)

Note: true $\mathbb{E}[x] = 5$; probability of being sampled modelled per Eq. (7) with $\rho_s = 0.5$, $\tau_{95} = 1$.

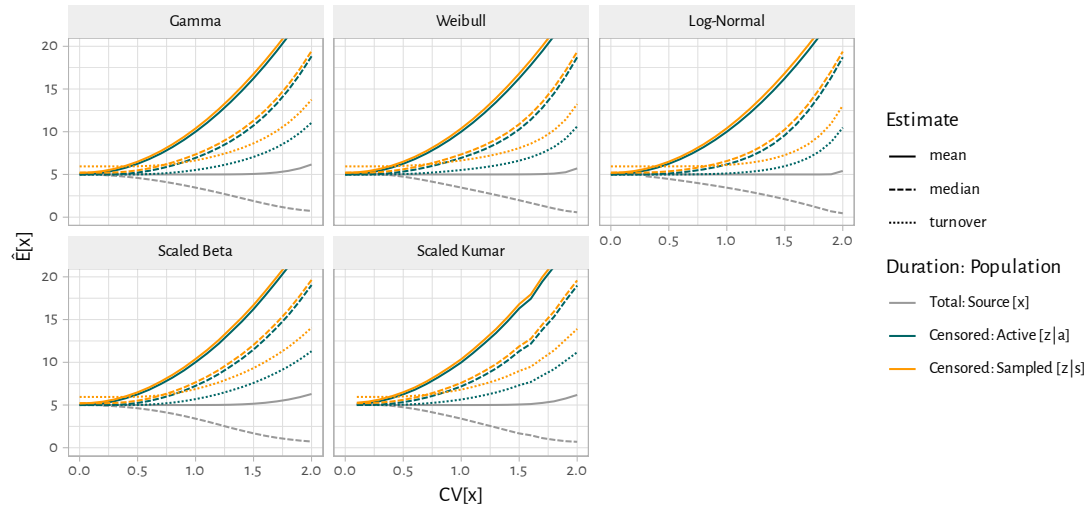


Figure A.6: Performance of $E[x]$ estimators considered in [1] across a range of $CV[x]$ and distribution families
 Note: true $E[x] = 5$; probability of being sampled modelled per Eq. (7) with $\rho_s = 0.5$, $\tau_{95} = 1$; means and medians for censored data (z) are doubled per [1].

A.3 Application

A.3.1 Aggregate data from a single survey

Figure A.7 illustrates the posterior distributions inferred by fitting our Bayesian model to the RDS-adjusted sex work duration data reported in [2]. The best-fitting distribution family, based on overall log-likelihood, was Gamma (purple).

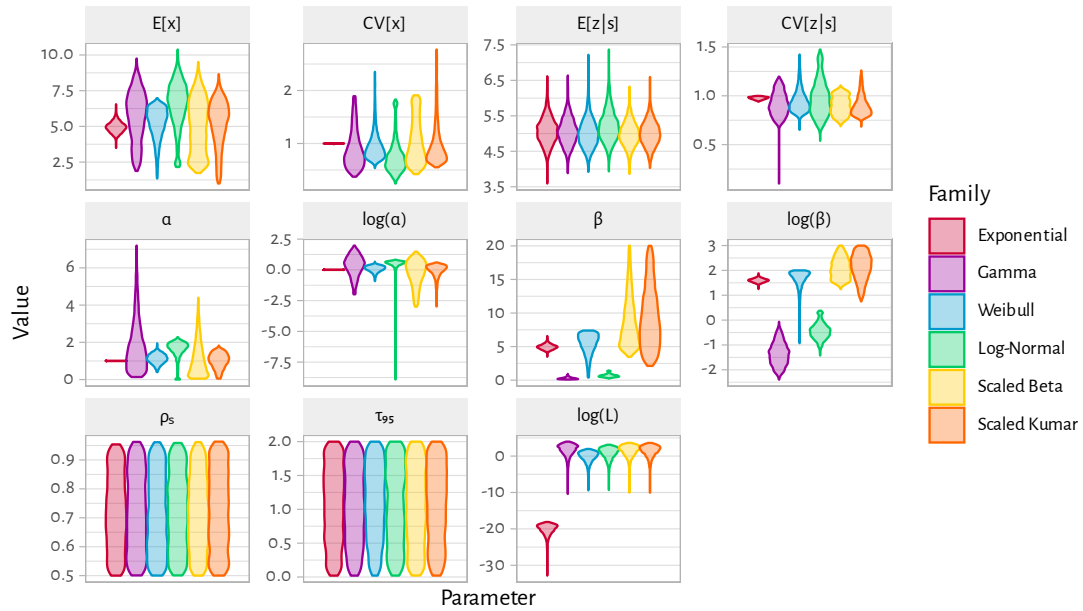


Figure A.7: Posterior distributions of model parameters and summary statistics when fitting to the RDS-adjusted Eswatini data (Table 2)

A.3.2 Aggregate data from a global review

Data The manually extracted data from Table S2 in [1] are provided as supplementary file `Fazit02012.csv`. We extracted all reported duration means $\mathbb{E}[z|s]$ and interval proportions $\hat{\mathbb{P}}[a < z < b|s]$ (including medians and maximum durations), but dropped from our analyses for simplicity: standard deviations, minimum durations, and durations reported as "greater/less than X". We also dropped estimates from the following 9 sources due to the female sex worker (FSW) population definition (it's not clear whether these studies were included in the quantitative syntheses of [1]):

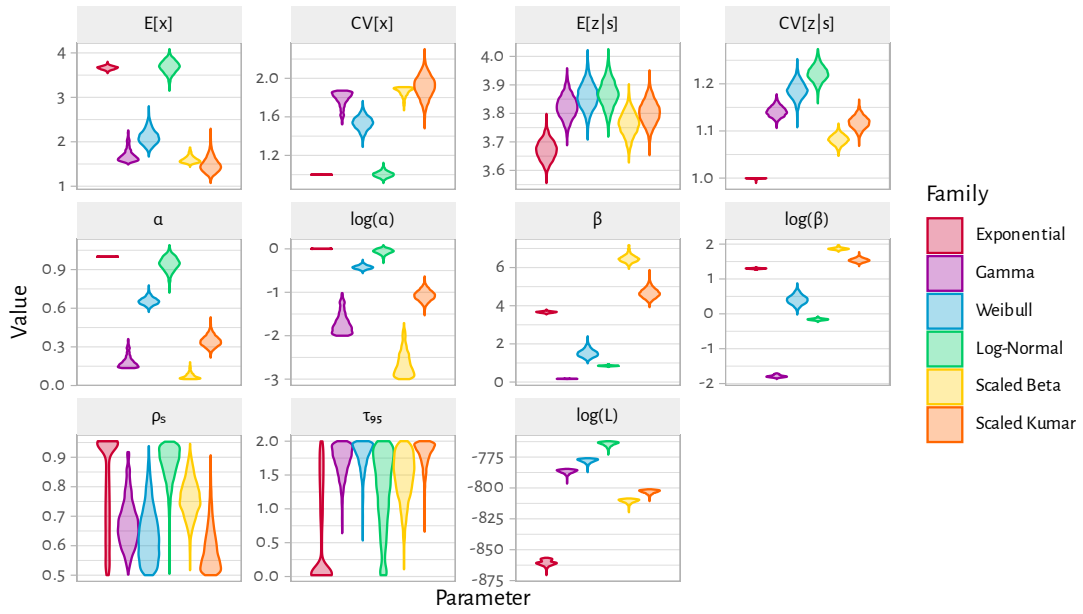
- Anzala (1995) Kenya: FSW in a cohort who acquired HIV
- Ward (2006) UK: FSW who retired and were followed-up
- Pineda (1995) Spain: FSW working for at least 21 months
- Strathdee (2008) Mexico: duplicate of Loza (2010) Mexico
- MOH (2003) Cambodia: not clearly FSW (e.g. karaoke workers)
- MOH (2007) Cambodia: not clearly FSW (e.g. karaoke workers)
- Gu (2009) China: FSW who inject drugs
- Silverman (2006) India: women trafficked into selling sex
- Simoes (1993) India: women incarcerated for selling sex

Before synthesizing the extracted data via our Bayesian model, we also adjusted the effective sample sizes for each study N_i to reduce the influence of very large studies via:

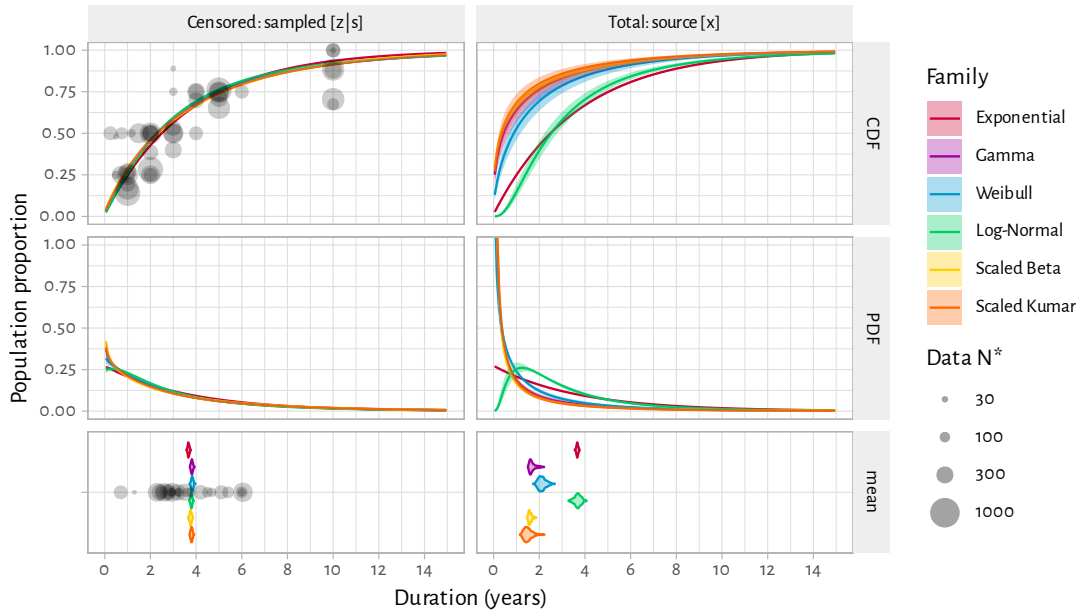
$$N_i^* = \frac{1}{\frac{1}{N_0} + \frac{1}{N_i}}, \quad N_0 = 1000 \quad (\text{A.3})$$

This adjustment loosely approximates a random effects approach by weighting each study more equally.

Results Figures A.8–A.11 illustrate the posterior distributions of model parameters, summary statistics, and cumulative/density duration distributions and means versus the data for female sex workers reviewed in [1]. Figure A.12 then summarizes estimates of mean total duration in sex work among the source population $\mathbb{E}[x]$ obtained via our model versus those reported in [1], across all distribution families considered.



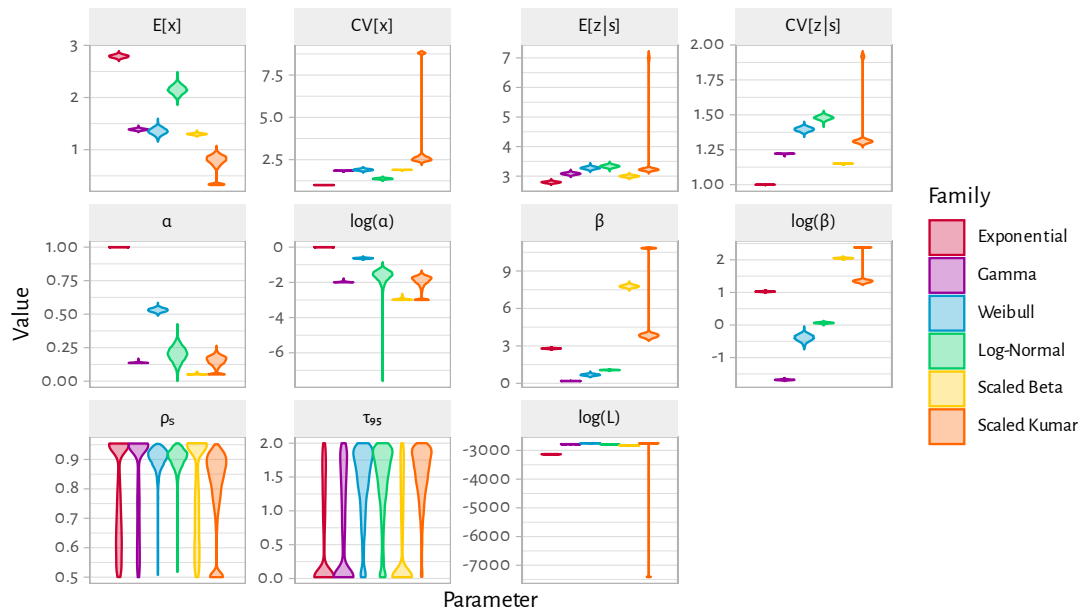
(a) Model parameter and summary statistics



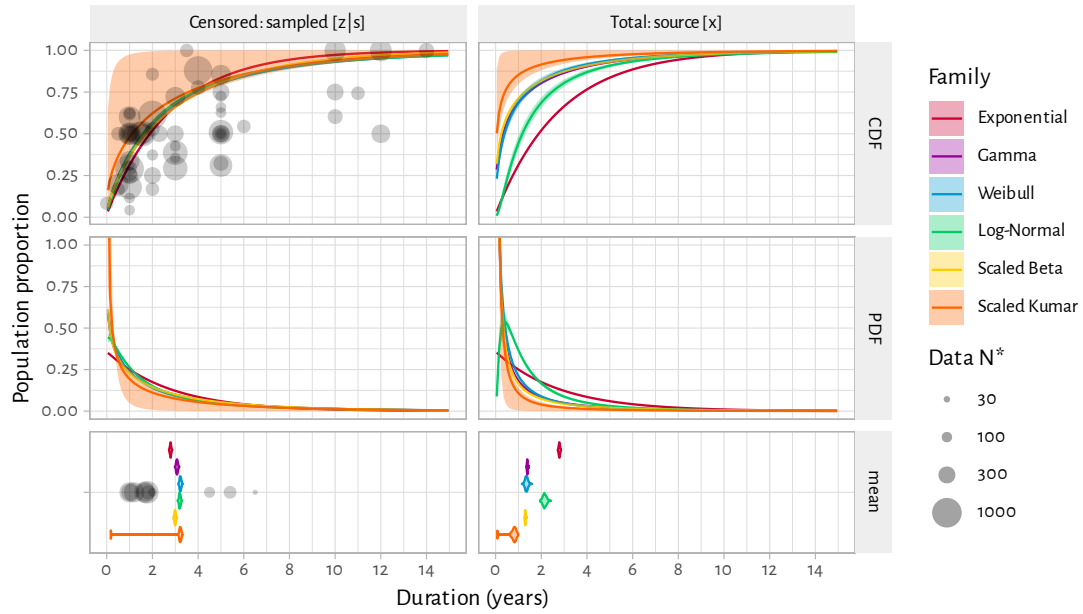
(b) Modelled cumulative (CDF) and density (PDF) distributions and means versus empirical data

Figure A.8: Model posteriors when fitting to empirical aggregate female sex worker duration data reviewed in [1] for **Africa**

Coloured lines & shaded ribbons denote mean & 95% CI distribution values; gray circles denote aggregate empirical estimates



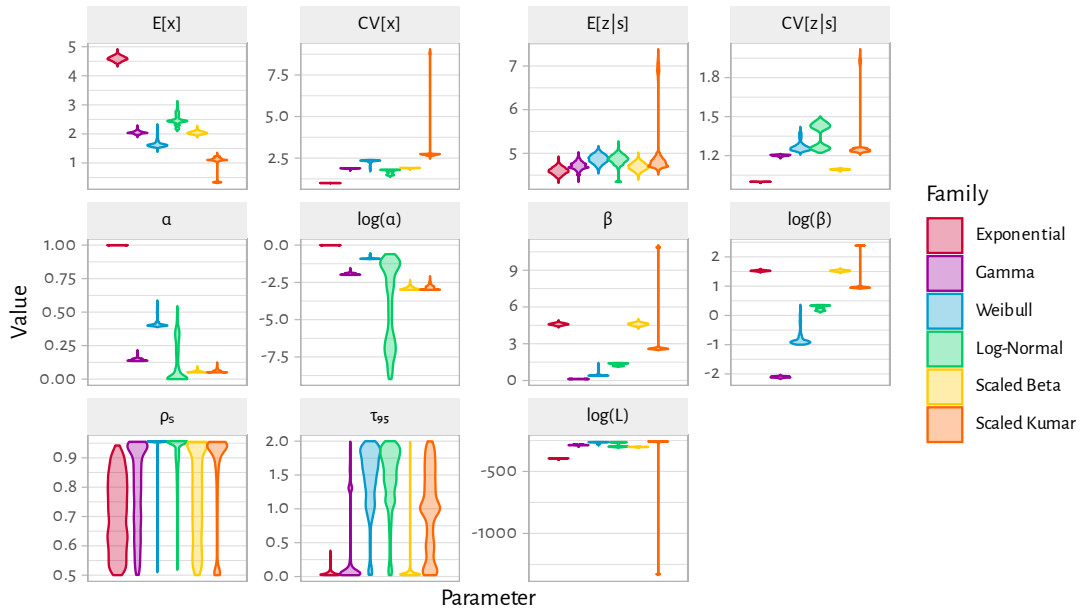
(a) Model parameter and summary statistics



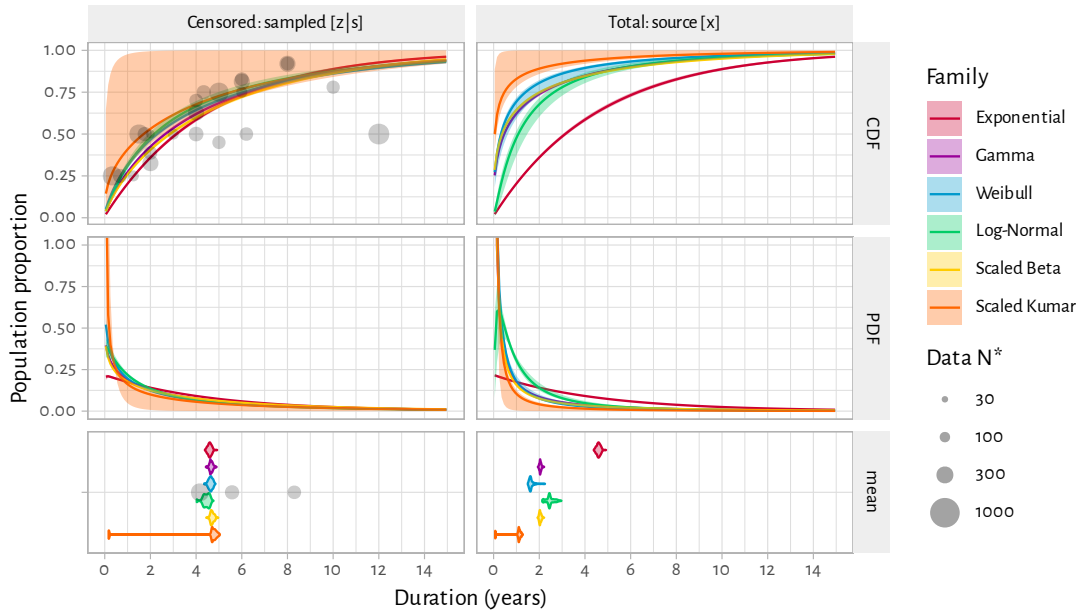
(b) Modelled cumulative (CDF) and density (PDF) distributions and means versus empirical data

Figure A.9: Model posteriors when fitting to empirical aggregate female sex worker duration data reviewed in [1] for **Asia**

Coloured lines & shaded ribbons denote mean & 95% CI distribution values; gray circles denote aggregate empirical estimates



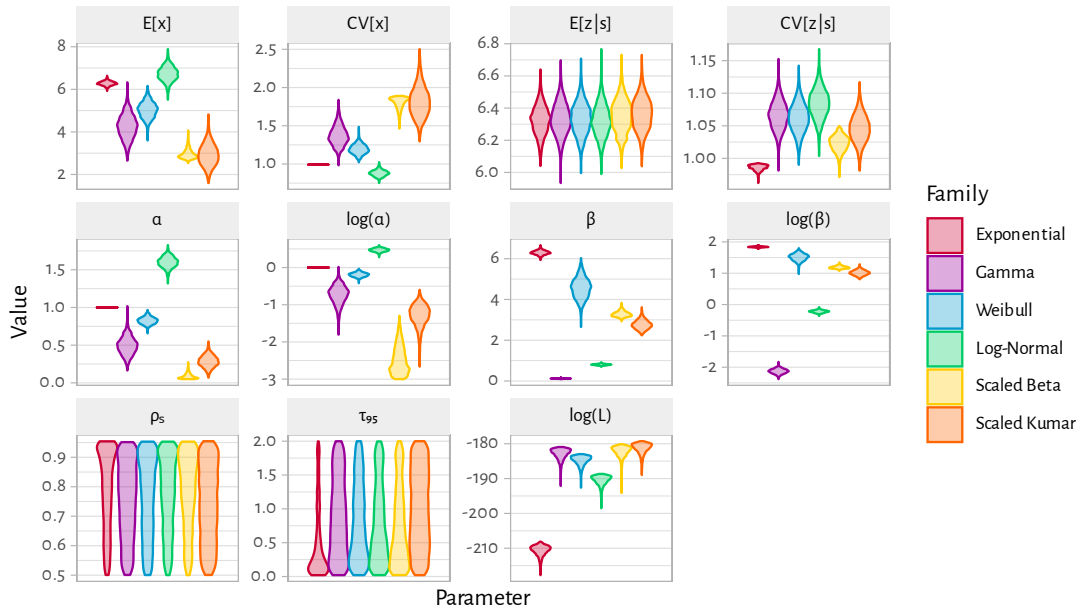
(a) Model parameter and summary statistics



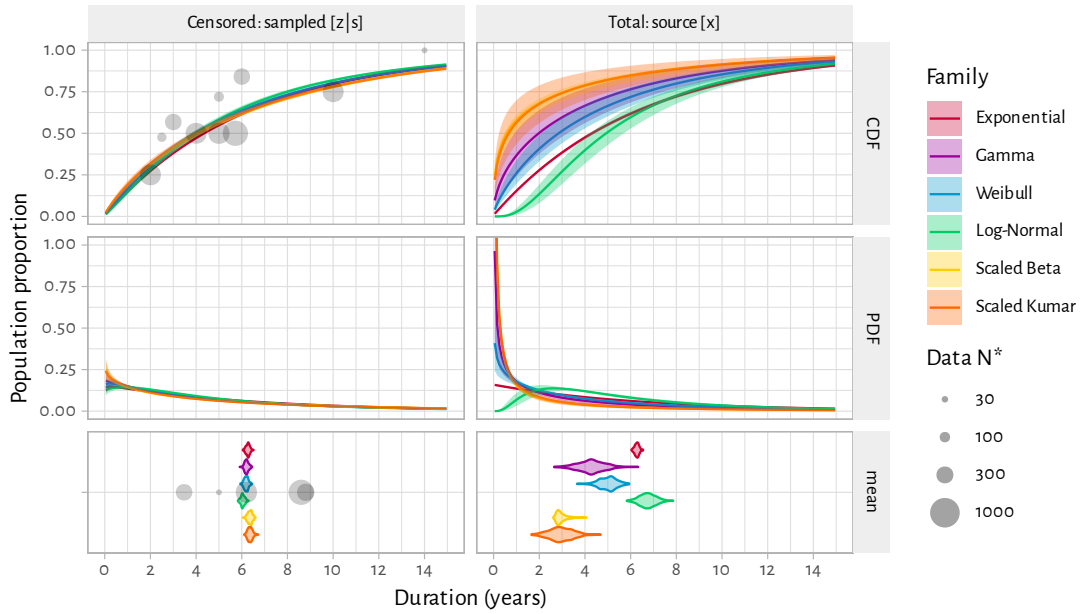
(b) Modelled cumulative (CDF) and density (PDF) distributions and means versus empirical data

Figure A.10: Model posteriors when fitting to empirical aggregate female sex worker duration data reviewed in [1] for **Europe**

Coloured lines & shaded ribbons denote mean & 95% CI distribution values; gray circles denote aggregate empirical estimates



(a) Model parameter and summary statistics



(b) Modelled cumulative (CDF) and density (PDF) distributions and means versus empirical data

Figure A.11: Model posteriors when fitting to empirical aggregate female sex worker duration data reviewed in [1] for **Latin America**

Coloured lines & shaded ribbons denote mean & 95% CI distribution values; gray circles denote aggregate empirical estimates

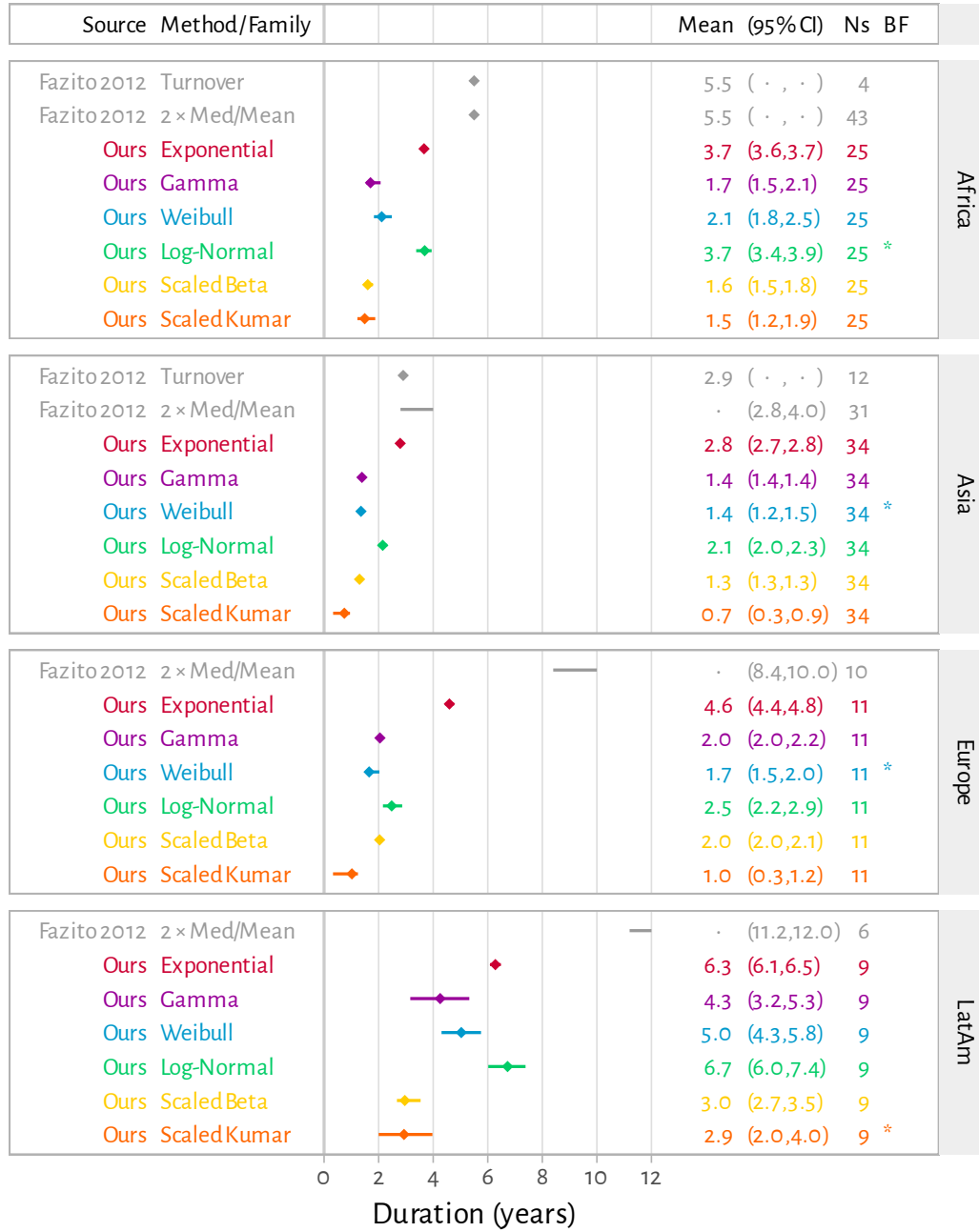


Figure A.12: Forest plot of estimated mean total duration among female sex workers $\mathbb{E}[x]$ versus regional synthesis estimates in [1]

Synthesis methodology in [1] was unclear, and regional estimates were variably reported as points or ranges; see Table 1 for method definitions. Ns: number of unique surveys contributing to the estimate; BF: best-fitting family per region.